possibility that the tombstones might have been posthumous memorials to venerated ancestors, rather than collectively indicating a sizeable Jewish settlement in the area. Nevertheless, it should also be noted that the apparent eleventh-century *terminus post quem* of the Jam-Firuzkuh Jewish community is in line with the evidence of Jewish communities at other important commercial cities/emporia in Afghanistan, such as Bamiyan, whence a sizeable collection of letters between Jewish family members have begun to provide invaluable information regarding their mercantile interests, as well as religious, liturgical, legal, and even poetic activities. Cf. http://web.nli.org.il/sites/NLI/English/library/news/Pages/Afghan-Geniza.aspx. Documents within this collection also furnish information about Jewish groups settled at yet other Afghan cities such as Ghazna as of the eleventh century: see Haim 2012.

85. The anecdotal figure of the Ghuri Jewish merchant served as an important historical clue for Fischel's (1965) and others' initial analyses of the Jam-Firuzkuh tombstones. See also Moline 1973/74: 147–148. For other studies of the inscriptions and the Jewish communities of Afghanistan, cf. *inter alia*, Fischel 1965; Pinder-Wilson 2001: n. 37; Lintz 2008; Lintz 2009; Hunter 2010; Thomas 2018: 214ff.; and above in main text and notes.
86. See esp. Thomas 2018: 54, 174, 189. Indeed, the disastrous flood of the Hari Rud, probably *c.* AH 595/1199 CE, which caused the destruction of the mosque adjacent to the famous *minar* of Jam-Firuzkuh, was noted by Juzjani, vol. I 1963: 375 (trans. vol. I, 1881: 404).
87. Given the significance of Balkh (ancient Bactra) in northern Afghanistan as "the emporium of India" at least since the ninth–tenth centuries, it is little surprise that an established Jewish mercantile community resided within the *rabad* – just outside the *madina*, though all still within the fortified city – as indicated by the Bab al-Yahud. Similarly, the Bab al-Hinduwan signified an Indian merchant community also in residence at Balkh. Cf. Bosworth 1988.
88. Cf. Barth 1961: 9–10, 97–100, 102; Barfield 1981: 28, 97ff.; Barfield 1993: 94–95, 99–100; Mahmud 2009: 251ff. See also Barfield (1981: 102; 1993: 98) for the contentious – though still regular – relations between nomads and farmers with respect to the damage done to crops by the former's grazing animals.
89. Although providing parallels to the Shansabanis' nomadism and participation in Perso-Islamic forms of kingship, clearly the Saljuqs did not go from *ruled* to *rulers*, but rather "inundated the Iranian world en masse, in their tribal and clan units" (Vàsàry 2015: 16). Moreover, Abbasid expansion into Iran and beyond during the late eighth century had already brought "eastern" Sasano-Iranian courtly practices into the Islamic world (see Finster 1994: 17–18). It was Saljuq political and military control of the Abbasid caliph and his capital at Baghdad, however, which created a more palpable east–west conduit, instigating the arrival of intellectuals and others westward to Baghdad. But rather than absorbing Baghdad into a fulcrum of power effectively shifting eastward toward the Saljuqs' preferred base at Isfahan, these migrations actually reified the political, social, and cultural differences between Baghdad and the Saljuq "east." Cf. Durand-Guédy 2013b: 325–326, 332–334; Van Renterghem 2015; also Peacock 2015: 134ff., 163–164, 168–169.